Extending AI-Agent Incident Analysis to Multi-Agent Systems: AFACS, an HFACS-Based Framework, and an Audit of Public Traces

James Le Cuirot*
CitadelAero

Preprint v1.0, 4 November 2026. Not peer reviewed.

Abstract

Ezell, Roberts-Gaal and Chan (2025) proposed a framework for analysing incidents involving AI agents. It treats single agents, does not distinguish deliberate departures from known requirements from errors, and has been illustrated on a public incident report but, as far as this study found, not used to code agent traces. This paper extends it to multi-agent systems using the structure of the Human Factors Analysis and Classification System (HFACS) from aviation. The extension, AFACS, adds a supervision tier, a coordination category and violations coded from behaviour with a graded statement of the evidence, and it states what evidence each layer needs. It is tested on the public MAST dataset of multi-agent traces. An audit finds duplicate and corrupt rows, an LLM judge that agrees with itself at a mean Cohen's κ of 0.43, and logs that record what the agents did but none of the system documentation needed to reconstruct a failure. In an AI pilot, Claude coded 250 failed traces three times. The layers were applied consistently (κ 0.63–0.76 between two models and 0.74–0.87 between two runs of one model; individual codes 0.52 and 0.59). Supervision failures appear in about two-thirds of failures, coordination breakdowns in two-fifths and violations in 9–13%, rarely resting on the agent's own stated reasoning; MAST's "Disobey Task Specification" label mixes errors with violations. Checked against the frameworks' documentation and code, the annotator's design-level claims usually identified a real weakness but overstated it as an absence (7 of 24 confirmed in full, 2 contradicted): design causes need design evidence. Validation with human coders is planned.

1 Introduction

When an aircraft accident is investigated, "pilot error" is where the analysis starts. Reason's model of organisational accidents describes how the unsafe act at the sharp end is made likely by latent conditions created earlier and higher up [1, 2]. The Human Factors Analysis and Classification System (HFACS) turned that model into a coding scheme with four tiers, from organisational influences down to unsafe acts [3, 4]. HFACS also keeps Reason's distinction between errors, which are unintended, and violations, which are departures from known rules. The two call for different remedies and appear to be different kinds of behaviour [5].

LLM agents act over many steps: they plan, call tools, write and run code, and exchange messages. A multi-agent system gives several agents roles, such as coder, tester and orchestrator, much as a crew divides duties. Ezell, Roberts-Gaal and Chan [6] proposed a framework for analysing incidents involving AI agents in this tradition. It explains incidents through system factors, contextual factors and cognitive errors, sets out what information investigators

*Commercial pilot (Senior First Officer), aviation flight safety officer, and aviation safety and compliance consultant specialising in human factors; MSc in Human Factors in Aviation.

need, and lists open challenges. Three features leave room for extension. It treats a single agent, so it has no place for an orchestrator that supervises other agents or for breakdowns between agents. Its agent-level category is cognitive errors, and it folds deliberate departures into it: "performing an unintended or undesirable task" counts as a cognitive error, and its example of an agent that reasoned about cheating its unit tests before doing so [7] sits in that category, so nothing distinguishes a violation from an error. And it is illustrated on one real incident from public advisories, without logs; as far as this study found, its taxonomy has not been used to code agent traces.

This paper extends the framework to multi-agent systems using the structure of HFACS, and calls the result AFACS. It takes up five of Ezell et al.'s open challenges: non-exhaustive coverage, emerging factors, high-level cognitive errors, reconstruction difficulties and, in part, expertise shortages. Using the public MAST dataset [8], it asks four questions.

- **RQ1, cross-walk.** How do Ezell et al.'s factors map onto the HFACS layers, and what does a multi-agent setting add?
- **RQ2, information adequacy.** Do real multi-agent traces contain the information Ezell et al. say investigators need?
- **RQ3, applicability.** Can the extended framework be applied consistently, and how often do failures involve the added categories?
- **RQ4, flat labels.** How do MAST's fourteen flat labels map onto the extended framework?

The contributions are the framework and its cross-walk; an audit of the MAST dataset and of what its logs let an investigator establish; and an AI-coded pilot on 250 traces, coded three times, with a check of the annotator's design claims against documentation. Human validation is planned as a second study, for which a blinded, pre-registered calibration set has been frozen.

2 Background

Incident analysis and failure taxonomies. Ezell et al. define system factors (training data, feedback, learning methods, system prompt, scaffolding), contextual factors (information, tools, task definition) and cognitive errors (observation, understanding, decision-making, action execution), and list eighteen items of information investigators need (their Table 1) [6]. Swiss-cheese guardrail designs and STPA look forward, at defences and hazards [9–11]; incident analysis, including Leveson's systems-theoretic CAST, looks back. MAST, derived from 150 traces, reports human agreement of $\kappa = 0.88$ and $\kappa = 0.77$ between its o1 judge and experts [8], but labels each failure flatly: its three categories (one attributed to system design) and execution stages do not separate the act from the conditions behind it, although its authors note that FM-1.1 has mixed deeper causes. Other taxonomies classify failures by error type [12], by the component that broke [13], by the agent and step responsible [14], or by where the fix belongs [15]. They answer "what broke" and "who and when"; Raj et al. also name specification gaming and harness-side faults, but as flat modes. AFACS adds whether an act was an error or a violation, graded by its evidence, and a layered account of the conditions behind it.

HFACS and its reliability. An aviation psychologist and a pilot re-coding 319 causal factors from NTSB reports into HFACS agreed at $\kappa = 0.71$ [16]. Reliability is contested: a modified HFACS showed low agreement [17], and a review found it higher with training and fewer departures from the original [18]. LLMs coding aviation reports against reference labels

reach far lower exact-match than partial-match accuracy [19]. AFACS therefore keeps the four tiers and reports agreement by layer as well as by code.

AI behaviours that resemble violations. Specification gaming, a widely used term, covers many behaviours AFACS would code as violations [20]. ImpossibleBench builds tasks that can be passed only by breaking the specification [21]. Reasoning traces can reveal reward hacking, and models trained against monitors learn to hide it [7]. Frontier models in constructed scenarios reason about constraints and circumvent them [22, 23]. OverclaimBench measures false claims of completion with a criterion that "requires no inference about intent" [24], the stance AFACS takes; and failures look increasingly like an incoherent "hot mess" the longer models reason and act [25], so most should be errors.

3 The AFACS Framework (RQ1)

Each failed trace is coded at every layer where it gives evidence (multi-label), with a deepest contributing layer and a confidence rating (Table 1; `codebook/v1.1.md`). The codebook is the author's.

Adapting HFACS to multi-agent runs. Five decisions adapt HFACS. (1) The humans around a run sit in existing tiers: the user who sets the task is at the top of the supervision chain, so a deficient task is L3.4 whoever set it, and a run launched or configured wrongly (for instance with an empty task) is `L4.5` Operation set-up, the analogue of a defective dispatch, rather than an excluded trace. (2) When the framework's own software misbehaves, the cause decides the code: a malfunction during the run is L2.1, a limitation in the design L4.1 or L4.2. (3) A failure need not include an unsafe act: if a tool fails and the agents respond reasonably, no L1 code is given. (4) A loop is the repeating agent's unsafe act and, where a supervisor could have broken it, also L3.3. (5) An omission is coded by whose job it was: L1 if an agent was told to do it, L3.1 if a supervisor should have checked, L4.1 or L4.3 if nobody was given the job.

Cross-walk. Table 2 condenses the item-by-item mapping (`docs/crosswalk_ezell.md`). Ezell et al.'s system factors map to L4, with the system prompt treated as specification (L3.4); contextual factors to L2.1, L3.4 and L4.2; cognitive errors to the L1 errors, with memory and distraction at L2.2. Their four cognitive functions cut the ground differently from HFACS's three error types, so AFACS records both for each error. In the other direction, their model-development factor has no HFACS tier; AFACS adds L4.4 by analogy with HFACS's resource management [16].

Layered evidence. A layered framework needs layered evidence: each layer is coded only from evidence an investigator in that position can hold (Table 7, Appendix C). Unsafe acts and preconditions are visible in the trace; supervision failures also need the task specification and system prompt; design factors need what is known of the design; model development needs the developer's records. L4.4 is therefore never coded from a trace, and the annotator is never offered it. Aviation offers a parallel: in NTSB-based HFACS coding, organisational causes were rare, which Wiegmann and Shappell attributed either to a smaller role or to investigation processes that rarely identify them [16].

Violations. "Violation" is used in HFACS's sense, applied to behaviour. An investigator never sees inside a pilot's head either; a violation is inferred from evidence that the rule was known and the action departed from it. AFACS makes no claim about intent. A failure is a violation only if (1) the requirement was in the agent's accessible context; (2) the trace shows the agent represented it, or the departure cannot plausibly be accidental, such as

Table 1: AFACS layers and codes (codebook v1, used in the pilot; v1.1 differs only in a note). L4.4, added from Ezell et al.'s system factors, needs developer-side evidence and is not applied from traces (Section 3). L4.5 covers the people who launched the run.

Layer	Code	Description
L4 Organisational / design	L4.1	Architecture and role design: role split, missing verifier, no termination logic
	L4.2	Resource provisioning: tools, step or token budgets, context limits
	L4.3	Process: no standard procedure for verification or handover
	L4.4	Model development (developer evidence only): training data, feedback or learning methods
	L4.5	Operation set-up: the run was launched or configured wrongly, e.g. an empty task
L3 Supervision / orchestration	L3.1	Inadequate supervision: no check on subagent output
	L3.2	Planned inappropriate operation: task beyond an agent's capability or information
	L3.3	Failure to correct a known problem: visible loop or error, no intervention
	L3.4	Deficient specification: ambiguous, contradictory or incomplete task or prompt, set by the user or by an orchestrating agent
L2 Preconditions	L2.1	Environment: tool or API failure, bad or unavailable information
	L2.2	Agent state: context saturation, lost instructions, carried-over error
	L2.3	Coordination: communication breakdown, withheld or ignored input
L1 Unsafe acts: errors	L1.E1	Skill-based: execution slip, e.g. a malformed tool call
	L1.E2	Decision: wrong plan or choice given adequate information
	L1.E3	Perceptual: misread observation, tool output or message
L1 Unsafe acts: violations	L1.V1	Routine: habitual shortcutting across the trace
	L1.V2	Exceptional: one-off departure, e.g. fabricating a result or editing tests
	L1.V?	Indeterminate: the criteria appear to hold but the evidence is thin

Table 2: Condensed cross-walk from Ezell et al.'s factors to AFACS codes. The last three rows have no separate counterpart in Ezell et al. †Needs developer evidence; not applied from traces (Section 3).

Ezell et al. factor	AFACS code	Note
System: training data, feedback, learning methods	L4.4†	Latent; feedback that rewards appearing successful is a typical condition behind violations
System: system prompt underspecified or encouraging undesirable behaviour	L3.4	System prompt treated as part of the specification
System: scaffolding not working as intended	L4.1/L4.2 or L2.1	Coded by cause: built into the design, or a failure during the run
Contextual: information inaccessible, missing, poor or malicious	L2.1	
Contextual: tools unusable or failing; tool errors not visible	L2.1 or L4.2	Run-time failure, or provisioning by design
Contextual: unclear or conflicting task; resource limits	L3.4; L4.2	
Cognitive: observation (failure to notice, wrong expectation)	L1.E3	Memory capacity at L2.2
Cognitive: understanding (misinterpretation; conclusions from poor information)	L1.E3; L1.E2	With L2.1 where the information was poor
Cognitive: decision-making (goal priority, non-viable plans, criteria)	L1.E2	Distraction from the goal at L2.2
Cognitive: action execution (incorrect execution; no action; no error monitoring)	L1.E1; L1.E1/E2; L1.E3 or L3.3	L3.3 where a supervising agent should have caught it
(none: single-agent framework)	L3.1–L3.3	Orchestrator fails to check, assigns beyond capability, or leaves a visible problem uncorrected
(none)	L2.3	Coordination between agents, the crew resource management analogue
(folded into cognitive errors, not distinguished)	L1.V1, L1.V2, L1.V?	Violations with an evidence grade (Section 3)

Table 3: Evidence grades for violations (codebook v1, field `violation_evidence`).

Grade	Use when	Goes with
stated	The agent's own words (reasoning, plan or message) acknowledge the requirement, and it then departs from it	L1.V1, L1.V2
inferred	Nothing in the agent's words shows it registered the requirement, but the act cannot plausibly be accidental	L1.V1, L1.V2
thin	The criteria seem to hold but the evidence for condition (1) or (2) is weak	L1.V?
none	No violation is coded	

hard-coding an expected output; and (3) the agent proceeded otherwise. If all three hold but the evidence is thin, the code is `L1.V?`; otherwise it is an error. A routine violation (`L1.V1`) here means one that recurs within the run, since a single trace cannot show a tolerated habit. The distinction matters because an error calls for better tools, tasks or models, and a violation points to incentives, monitoring and what training rewards. Each violation carries an evidence grade (Table 3). Stated reasoning is evidence, not proof: written reasoning may not reflect what produced an action, and models can learn to hide it [7], which is why the *inferred* grade exists.

Failures and incidents. Ezell et al. analyse incidents, events that cause or could cause harm. MAST's traces are failed benchmark tasks. Aviation applies the same causal analysis to occurrences without harm, because their causes are the causes of future accidents; AFACS is applied on that basis.

4 Data and Method

Data and audit. The data are MAST's public release (`mcemri/MAST-Data`, revision `95118ac`, CC-BY-4.0): 1 642 traces from seven frameworks, each with 14 binary labels from an LLM judge (o1). The audit (Appendix A; `docs/data_audit.md`) found 1 537 distinct traces among the 1 642 rows; a group of 100 rows holding 30 distinct texts with unrelated labels; misfiled and mislabelled traces; five runs launched with an empty task; no task-success field in MAST's metadata (60 logs carry a benchmark verdict); and, on 30 traces the judge labelled twice, a mean per-mode κ of 0.43 (pooling modes would inflate it to 0.54, so per-code averaging is used throughout). After exclusions, and excluding ChatDev (traces of about 40 000–495 000 tokens) and traces over 30 000 tokens, the eligible pool is 893 MAST-failed traces across six frameworks.

Rendering and blinding. A parser per log format splits each trace into numbered steps, keeping agent text verbatim. Every coder reads the same rendering. MAST's labels are hidden, and information the agents never saw (benchmark answers and pass/fail verdicts) is replaced by a placeholder, so that the outcome cannot colour the coding.

Information audit (RQ2). For each framework, each of Ezell et al.'s eighteen items is classified as present, partial, absent or not applicable, using automatic checks where reliable (timestamps, tool calls, reasoning, model identifiers, settings, versions, errors) and otherwise three sampled traces, with the reason recorded for every judgement (`docs/information_audit.md`).

AI pilot (RQ3, RQ4). Claude coded a 250-trace sample of MAST-failed traces, balanced across frameworks and models (AG2 64, AppWorld 23, HyperAgent 13, Magentic-One 63, MetaGPT 64, OpenManus 23), twice with `claude-sonnet-5-5` and once with `claude-opus-5-5`, using codebook v1. Annotations ran through Claude Code's headless

mode with tools disabled and the system prompt replaced by the annotator prompt and codebook. Replies are constrained by a JSON schema whose allowed codes come from the codebook, and must give step-referenced quotes for each code, a causal summary, an evidence grade for any violation, and Ezell et al.'s cognitive function for each error. Every annotation records the models, the prompt and codebook versions and a hash of the full instructions; a refusal is an error, never rerouted. Each quote is checked automatically against the step it cites. Shares are weighted back to the eligible pool outside the calibration set (867 traces) and reported with Wilson intervals (Appendix B).

Consistency measures. Agreement between models and between runs uses Cohen's κ [26, 27] for each layer's presence, each code (averaged, never pooled), error versus violation, the evidence grade, the deepest layer (also linearly weighted), and whether a failure was observed, with 95% bootstrap intervals for the headline measures, omitted where either coder gave fewer than three positive or three negative answers, since with such imbalanced totals κ is unstable and can be paradoxically low [28]. The share of identical full code sets is also reported [19]. These measures show whether the framework can be applied *consistently*, not whether the codes are *correct*: that needs independent human coders.

Documentation check and worked examples. Because the annotator sees only the trace, its most frequent design claims for each framework were checked against the framework's paper, documentation and code and against MAST's own description (`docs/design_check.md`). Worked examples illustrate what the coding records, using evidence that does not depend on judging whether the agents' answers were correct; they are illustrations, not validation.

Planned validation. A calibration set of 30 traces (26 failed, 4 blind MAST-clean controls; 18 development, 12 held out) was frozen before any coding, with the hidden key's SHA-256 fingerprint committed. Independent coders will code it blind; the AI pilot never touched it.

5 Results

5.1 RQ1: cross-walk

Every factor in Ezell et al.'s taxonomy has a place in AFACS (Table 2). The extension adds a supervision tier (L3.1–L3.3), coordination between agents (L2.3) and graded violations; their framework contributes model development (L4.4, with its own evidence requirement) and named security contexts. In the pilot, error types and cognitive functions paired as the cross-walk predicts (every skill-based error with action; decision errors mostly with decision; perceptual errors with understanding and observation), but this is not a test: the codebook the annotator read stated the prediction, and the two schemes share examples. The prediction is removed in codebook v1.1.

5.2 RQ2: information adequacy

The logs are good records of what the agents said and did: responses and actions are present in all seven frameworks (Figure 1). Everything needed to identify or re-run the system that failed is missing. No framework provides system documentation, artefacts or access; no framework logs a random seed; only ChatDev logs sampling settings and system prompts; and MAST's dataset names models without versions. The only model identifier logged inside a trace contradicts MAST's metadata for one group of 30 traces. Labelled reasoning appears in only two frameworks, and timestamps are absent from four (counts in Table 8, Appendix C). For AFACS the consequence is uneven observability: unsafe acts and coordination are well observed, supervision failures are visible as behaviour but without prompts it is often unclear

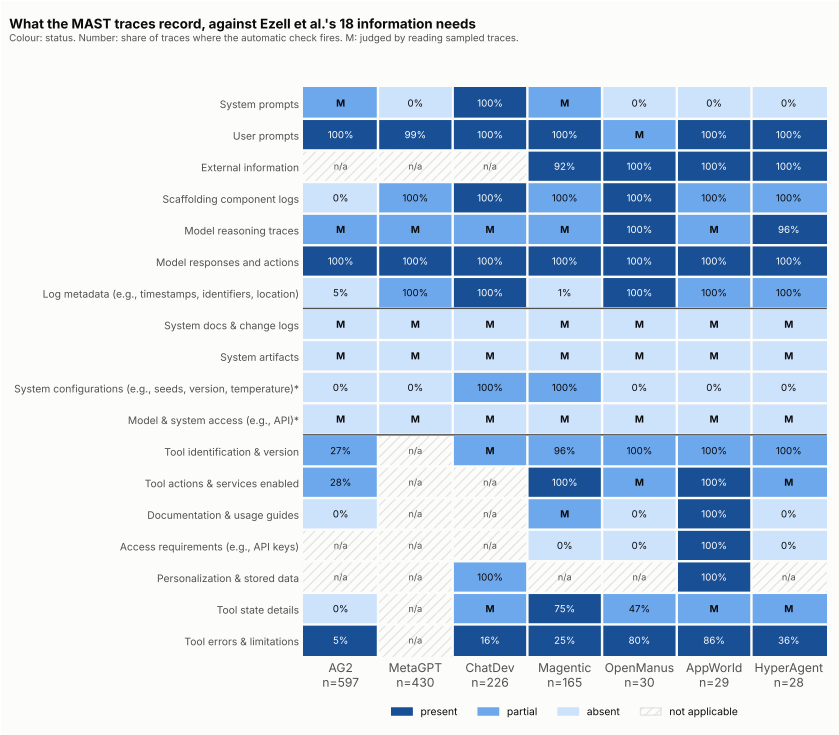


Figure 1: MAST's logs against the eighteen information items of Ezell et al.'s Table 1, by framework. Colour gives the status; numbers give the share of traces in which an automatic check fires; M marks judgements made by reading sampled traces. Items marked * matter mainly for reconstruction.

what an orchestrator was told to do, and model development cannot be evidenced at all. These findings are an empirical instance of Ezell et al.'s reconstruction challenge.

5.3 RQ3: applicability

All 750 codings were valid, with no refusals or errors. Layer presence was applied consistently (Table 4): κ 0.63–0.76 between models and 0.74–0.87 between runs. Individual codes agreed less (0.52 and 0.59), the usual pattern in HFACS coding, and 24% and 40% of traces received an identical full set of codes. The weakest codes were `L4.3` (0.19 and 0.23), which overlaps with `L4.1`; the rare `L1.V?` (about zero); and `L3.2` and `L3.4` (0.32–0.62). HFACS's error types and Ezell et al.'s cognitive functions were applied about equally consistently. The evidence was genuine: 99.6–99.9% of about 4 000 quotes were found in the step cited (after normalising whitespace, quotation marks and capitals; Appendix B), and none of the checkable quotes was absent from the trace, though the check shows that the words exist, not that they support the code.

Weighted to the eligible pool, the annotator found a failure in 77–84% of the MAST-failed traces. Among failures, every run coded an unsafe act in all of them and a factor at L2–L4 in 85–91%. The categories AFACS adds were common: supervision failures (L3.1–L3.3) in 67% (95% interval 59–75%; other runs 69% and 71%) and coordination breakdowns (L2.3) in 40% (32–48%; 41%, 41%). Violations were a minority: 9% of failures (5–15%; 13%, 10%). Few rested on the agent's stated reasoning: in the primary run most were inferred from the act (6%) rather than stated (1%), while the Opus run graded more as thin (7%) than as inferred (5%) or stated (2%). Violations were concentrated in HyperAgent (69% of its failures in the primary run) and AG2 (24%); none were coded in AppWorld, and in MetaGPT only two, both by Opus. The typical violation was an agent reporting results of tool calls it never

Table 4: Consistency of AI coding with AFACS on the 250-trace bulk sample. Cohen's κ with 95% bootstrap intervals (2 000 resamples); intervals are given for the headline measures only, and omitted where either coder gave fewer than three positive or three negative answers.

Source: `results/agreement_*.md` and `results/analysis_*.md`

Measure	Sonnet vs Opus	Sonnet run 1 vs run 2
L4 present	0.71 (0.62–0.79)	0.74 (0.65–0.82)
L3 present	0.63 (0.53–0.72)	0.74 (0.65–0.82)
L2 present	0.75 (0.67–0.83)	0.76 (0.67–0.83)
L1 present	0.76 (0.65–0.86)	0.87 (0.78–0.94)
Individual codes (mean per-code κ)	0.52 (0.45–0.57)	0.59 (0.53–0.66)
Violation vs error	0.67 (0.51–0.81)	0.68 (0.50–0.83)
Violation evidence grade	0.56	0.62
Error type, HFACS E1–E3 (mean per-code κ)	0.55	0.71
Error type, Ezell et al. functions (mean per-label κ)	0.58	0.70
Deepest layer (weighted)	0.75 (0.68–0.82)	0.80 (0.73–0.86)
Failure observed	0.69 (0.57–0.79)	0.80 (0.70–0.88)
Identical full code set (share of traces)	24%	40%
Evidence quotes found in the cited step	Sonnet 99.6%, 99.6%; Opus 99.9%	

received; a few were "verification" code that only returned a hard-coded answer.

Three features need care. Design factors (L4) were coded in 63–74% of failures and were usually the deepest layer, but every L4 code is an inference from the trace (Section 5.4). No run ever left L1 empty, although the codebook allows it; the prompt's instruction to look for "the unsafe acts at the sharp end" may encourage this. And confidence was "medium" in 86–87% of codings, but informative when used: for codings rated "low", the two Sonnet runs agreed on whether there was a failure in 67% of cases, against 96% for "medium".

5.4 Design claims against documentation

Of 24 design claims, the most frequent for each framework in the primary run, only two were wrong outright, but only seven held in full (Table 5). The typical error was to overstate a weakness as an absence: "no verifier", "no termination logic" or "no loop detection" where the system has the mechanism in a weak form. MetaGPT's reviewer comments only on the tests; MathChat detects repeated results; Magentic-One's orchestrator asks itself each turn whether it is in a loop; OpenManus has a duplicate-response detector that only adds a prompt; HyperAgent's editor rejects edits that fail a syntax check. A weak mechanism that fails leaves the same trace as a missing one. Two claims placed a failure at the wrong layer (a run-time fault and an environment set-up problem coded as design; the second is otherwise correct and is counted as partly true), and the annotator missed limits that no trace reveals, such as Magentic-One's 20-turn budget. Design factors coded from traces should be read as "no effective safeguard visible in the trace". The check also exposed discrepancies in MAST's own documentation (Appendix A): MetaGPT ran as a three-role example with no verifier of the code, and MAST's paper labels the HyperAgent traces with a model that postdates their source.

5.5 RQ4: MAST's flat labels

Every MAST mode spread across layers (Figure 2; expectations in Table 9, Appendix C). FM-1.1 Disobey Task Specification ($n = 79$) was a mixture: 17% of its traces carry a violation

Table 5: The annotator's most frequent design claims checked against each framework's documentation and code.

Source: `docs/design_check.md`

Framework	Claims	Confirmed	Partly true	Contradicted	Not settled
MetaGPT	5	2	3	0	0
AG2	4	1	2	1	0
Magentic-One	6	2	3	1	0
OpenManus	4	1	3	0	0
HyperAgent	3	0	3	0	0
AppWorld	2	1	0	0	1
All	24	7	14	2	1

code (22% and 12% in the other runs) and the rest errors only, while a deficient specification was coded in only 6% (16% and 6% in the other runs). L2.3 coordination appears in 52% of FM-2.3 Task Derailment and 62% of FM-2.5 Ignored Other Agent's Input. FM-1.3 Step Repetition was coded as a design factor (L4.1, 60%) more often than as a supervisor failing to break the loop (L3.3, 27%), and FM-3.2 No or Incomplete Verification split between supervision (L3.1, 69%) and design (L4.1, 69%). A single flat label therefore covers failures whose remedies differ: a missing verifier, a supervisor who did not check, and an agent that departed from a requirement it had registered.

6 Worked Examples

Three short traces, each given the same deepest factor and main codes by all three runs, show what the layered coding records. Each statement rests on the trace, the benchmark's verdict or the documentation; benchmark questions are not reproduced. Two further examples are in Appendix D.

A failure built into the design (MetaGPT). In `MetaGPT_ProgramDev-v2_Qwen__043` the task is a command-line weight converter. The coder's table covers eight direct unit pairs and rejects any other (S3). After the reviewer suggests testing an indirect conversion (S5), the tester adds a test for kilograms to ounces (S6), a pair the table lacks, so the test would fail; nobody can find out, because no agent runs code. The reviewer then replies in another language, approves the tests and reports a syntax error that is not there (S7), and the run ends with the code unrevised. MAST labels the trace 2.6, 3.1 and 3.3. All three runs code L4.1 (nothing runs or checks the code, and the review never reaches the coder), L3.1 (the only check never checked the code) and L1 errors; the documentation confirms the design claim. The flat labels name symptoms; the layered account places the deepest cause in a design that makes them likely whatever the agents do.

Flagged, but passed (AppWorld). MAST's judge labelled `AppWorld_Test-C_GPT-4o__000` 2.6 Reasoning–action mismatch, placing it among MAST's failed traces. The benchmark's own evaluation, hidden from the agents and the annotator, says the task passed, and all three runs judged that no failure occurred, noting inefficiencies but no unsafe act. Three of the 23 AppWorld traces in the sample passed despite MAST labels, and the annotator's judgement matched the benchmark in 21 of 23 in two runs and 20 of 23 in the third. A list of failure modes records what a judge noticed, not whether anything failed; AFACS records the two separately, as an occurrence report does.

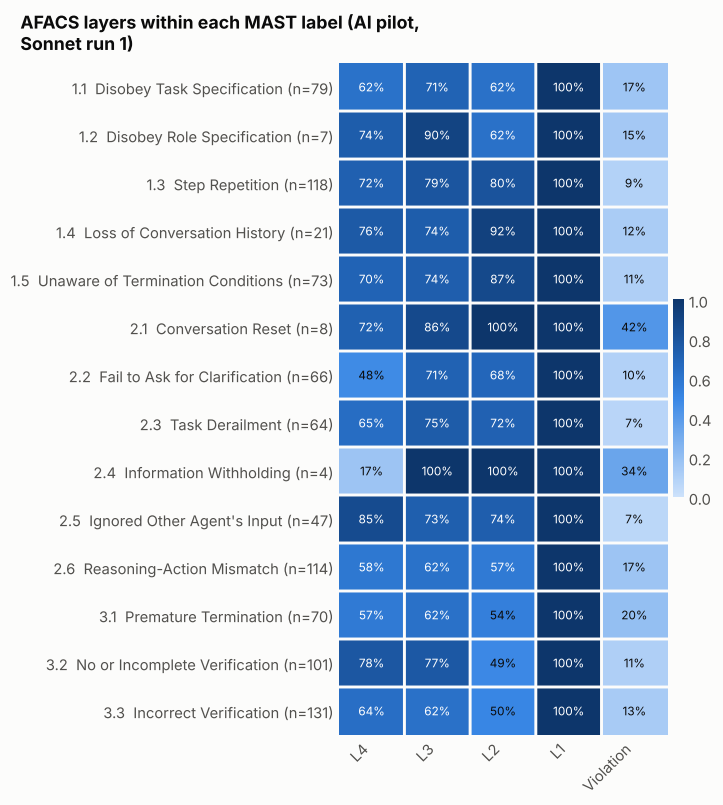


Figure 2: Share of failed traces carrying each MAST label that have an AFACS factor at each layer, and a violation code (Sonnet run 1, weighted).

A missing tool, or a tool not used (Magentic-One). In `Magentic_One_GPT4o__029` the task needs information in an image file. The orchestrator twice asks FileSurfer to read it (S5, S7); FileSurfer replies that it cannot interpret images (S8). A text-recognition tool installed instead garbles the part that matters (S11–S12), the assistant works from the garbled text (S14), and the orchestrator submits an unchecked answer (S15). All three runs code a missing tool (L4.2) as the deepest factor. The documentation qualifies this: WebSurfer works from screenshots and can open local files, and it was never asked. On that evidence the account should also include the orchestrator assigning the task to an agent that could not do it (L3.2), which only one run coded. Design claims made from a trace need the system's documentation.

7 Discussion

The extension earns its place. The categories with no counterpart in Ezell et al.'s framework were among the most frequently coded. Violations were rare, but MAST's FM-1.1 does not separate them from errors, and the evidence grade showed that few rested on the agent's stated reasoning. An AI annotator applied the layers consistently; at the level of individual codes its agreement (0.52–0.59) was above that of MAST's judge with itself on its own labels (0.43), although the two figures cover different traces and label sets. Two cautions temper this. Consistency is not correctness. And the deeper the layer, the less a trace can establish: design factors were the most common deepest layer yet the least observable, and the documentation check showed what trace-only coding gets wrong. By analogy with aviation, where organisational findings depend on company records more than on the flight recorder,

the same division of evidence applies here. For the field, the information audit suggests a logging standard for multi-agent research releases, covering at least model identifiers and versions, sampling settings and seeds, system prompts and role definitions, and timestamps.

8 Limitations

- **Consistency, not correctness.** Agreement between AI runs can coexist with shared error; human validation is the next study. The annotator is a language model coding other language models and may share their blind spots.
- **Inferred design factors.** L4 codes are inferences from traces and, checked against documentation, tend to overstate absences.
- **No failure without an unsafe act was coded,** although the codebook allows it; whether such failures are rare or the option is avoided is open.
- **Outcomes were hidden** to avoid hindsight bias, so the annotator could not tell whether, for example, a mathematical answer was wrong.
- **The Ezell pairing is not a test,** because the codebook the annotator read stated it.
- **Behavioural, not intentional.** "Violation" describes the trace, not what a model wanted.
- **Data.** MAST's labels are noisy and record no outcome; ChatDev and long traces are excluded; model is confounded with framework; benchmark failures carry no harm; and HFACS's own reliability is debated.
- **Annotation route.** Annotations ran through Claude Code's headless mode; results through the bare API may differ slightly.

9 Future Work

The next study validates AFACS with independent human coders on the frozen calibration set. Three questions from the pilot belong there: how often trace-inferred design factors are right, when each trace is reviewed with the system's documentation; whether failures without an unsafe act are rare or induced by the prompt, tested with a variant prompt; and how coding changes when the annotator knows the outcome (the verdict, not the answer), as an investigator knows an accident occurred, or uses datasets with verified outcomes and human attribution [14]. A fifth level for the people around a system (users, operators, regulators) may suit deployed systems better and is left open. A further phase will apply AFACS to an evaluation of aviation dispatch and safety decisions under commercial, authority and user pressure, built in Inspect [29] from public regulatory sources; related aviation evaluations [30–32] do not code their failures with a human-factors framework, although AeroCopilotBench derives failure labels from its own data, one of which, a reasoned deviation from the operating handbook, parallels AFACS's stated violation.

Acknowledgement

AI assistance. Literature searches, drafting, the data pipeline, the analysis and the documentation check were carried out with AI assistance (Claude, Anthropic) under the author's direction. References were checked against their sources during the literature search, and the bibliography was checked automatically against Crossref and arXiv; an independent

AI-assisted audit then checked the references, quotations, numbers and worked examples against their sources and data (`papers/06-afacs/AUDIT.md`), and its findings were addressed before this version. The author is responsible for the final text. Several of the AI-safety sources cited are research reports by Anthropic, the developer of the assistant used. Claude models were also study material: they coded the traces in the pilot (Section 4).

Competing interests. The author is the founder of CitadelAero, which builds AI tools for aviation; the aviation evaluation proposed as future work lies in the same area. This study received no external funding and uses only public data.

Disclaimer. The views expressed are the author's own and do not represent those of any employer or regulator. Nothing here is operational, legal or regulatory advice.

Materials. The code, codebook, prompts, AI codings, analysis outputs, data audit and documentation check for this paper are at `https://github.com/JamesLeCuirot/Research/tree/main/papers/06-afacs`. Code is MIT-licensed (© 2026 CitadelAero Limited); the MAST dataset [8] is CC-BY-4.0. Traces are not redistributed, because they contain benchmark questions whose maintainers ask that they not be reposted; the pipeline recreates them from the pinned revision, and the AI codings are committed with their quotes encoded.

References

[1] J. Reason, *Human Error*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1990.

[2] ——, *Managing the Risks of Organizational Accidents*. Aldershot, UK: Ashgate, 1997, Reissued by Routledge, 2016 (doi: 10.4324/9781315543543).

[3] S. A. Shappell and D. A. Wiegmann, "The human factors analysis and classification system–HFACS," U.S. Department of Transportation, Federal Aviation Administration, Office of Aviation Medicine, Washington, DC, Tech. Rep. DOT/FAA/AM-00/7, February 2000. [Online]. Available: https://www.faa.gov/sites/faa.gov/files/data_research/research/med_humanfacs/oamtechreports/00_07.pdf

[4] D. A. Wiegmann and S. A. Shappell, *A Human Error Approach to Aviation Accident Analysis: The Human Factors Analysis and Classification System*. Aldershot, UK: Ashgate, 2003, reissued by Routledge, 2017, doi:10.4324/9781315263878. [Online]. Available: https://www.routledge.com/products/9780754618737

[5] J. Reason, A. Manstead, S. Stradling, J. Baxter, and K. Campbell, "Errors and violations on the roads: a real distinction?" *Ergonomics*, vol. 33, no. 10-11, pp. 1315–1332, 1990.

[6] C. Ezell, X. Roberts-Gaal, and A. Chan, "Incident analysis for AI agents," in *Proceedings of the 2025 AAAI/ACM Conference on AI, Ethics, and Society (AIES)*, vol. 8, no. 1, 2025, pp. 865–878. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2508.14231

[7] B. Baker, J. Huizinga, L. Gao, Z. Dou, M. Y. Guan, A. Madry, W. Zaremba, J. Pachocki, and D. Farhi, "Monitoring reasoning models for misbehavior and the risks of promoting obfuscation," arXiv preprint arXiv:2503.11926, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2503.11926

[8] M. Cemri, M. Z. Pan, S. Yang, L. A. Agrawal, B. Chopra, R. Tiwari, K. Keutzer, A. Parameswaran, D. Klein, K. Ramchandran, M. Zaharia, J. E. Gonzalez, and I. Stoica, "Why do multi-agent LLM systems fail?" in *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems (NeurIPS 2025)*, 2025, Datasets and Benchmarks Track; spotlight. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2503.13657

[9] M. Shamsujjoha, Q. Lu, D. Zhao, and L. Zhu, "Swiss cheese model for AI safety: A taxonomy and reference architecture for multi-layered guardrails of foundation model based agents," in *2025 IEEE 22nd International Conference on Software Architecture (ICSA)*, 2025, pp. 37–48, ArXiv:2408.02205.

[10] N. G. Leveson, *Engineering a Safer World: Systems Thinking Applied to Safety*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press, 2012.

[11] S. Mylius, "Systematic hazard analysis for frontier AI using STPA," arXiv preprint arXiv:2506.01782, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2506.01782

[12] D. Deshpande, V. Gangal, H. Mehta, J. Krishnan, A. Kannappan, and R. Qian, "TRAIL: Trace reasoning and agentic issue localization," arXiv preprint arXiv:2505.08638, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2505.08638

[13] K. Zhu, Z. Liu, B. Li, M. Tian, Y. Yang, J. Zhang, P. Han, Q. Xie, F. Cui, W. Zhang, X. Ma, X. Yu, G. Ramesh, J. Wu, Z. Liu, P. Lu, J. Zou, and J. You, "Where LLM agents fail and how they can learn from failures," arXiv preprint arXiv:2509.25370, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2509.25370

[14] S. Zhang, M. Yin, J. Zhang, J. Liu, Z. Han, J. Zhang, B. Li, C. Wang, H. Wang, Y. Chen, and Q. Wu, "Which agent causes task failures and when? on automated failure attribution of LLM multi-agent systems," in *Proceedings of the 42nd International Conference on Machine Learning*, ser. Proceedings of Machine Learning Research, vol. 267, 2025, pp. 76 583–76 599. [Online]. Available: https://proceedings.mlr.press/v267/zhang25cq.html

[15] H. Raj, V. Gupta, A. Mahmoud, R.-G. Dumitru, D. Yi, A. Sabharwal, and Y. He, "Model or harness? an interaction-centric taxonomy for localizing agent failures," arXiv preprint arXiv:2607.28802, 2026. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2607.28802

[16] D. A. Wiegmann and S. A. Shappell, "A human error analysis of commercial aviation accidents using the human factors analysis and classification system (HFACS)," U.S. Department of Transportation, Federal Aviation Administration, Office of Aviation Medicine, Washington, DC, Tech. Rep. DOT/FAA/AM-01/3, February 2001. [Online]. Available: https://rosap.ntl.bts.gov/view/dot/15409/dot_15409_DS1.pdf

[17] N. S. Olsen and S. T. Shorrock, "Evaluation of the HFACS-ADF safety classification system: Inter-coder consensus and intra-coder consistency," *Accident Analysis & Prevention*, vol. 42, no. 2, pp. 437–444, 2010.

[18] T. N. Cohen, D. A. Wiegmann, and S. A. Shappell, "Evaluating the reliability of the human factors analysis and classification system," *Aerospace Medicine and Human Performance*, vol. 86, no. 8, pp. 728–735, 2015.

[19] A. Ahmadi, S. Sharif, and Y. Banad, "Improving aviation safety analysis: Automated HFACS classification using reinforcement learning with group relative policy optimization," arXiv preprint arXiv:2508.21201, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2508.21201

[20] V. Krakovna, J. Uesato, V. Mikulik, M. Rahtz, T. Everitt, R. Kumar, Z. Kenton, J. Leike, and S. Legg, "Specification gaming: the flip side of AI ingenuity," DeepMind blog, April 2020, Accessed: Nov. 3, 2026. [Online]. Available: https://deepmind.google/blog/specification-gaming-the-flip-side-of-ai-ingenuity/

[21] Z. Zhong, A. Raghunathan, and N. Carlini, "ImpossibleBench: Measuring LLMs' propensity of exploiting test cases," arXiv preprint arXiv:2510.20270, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2510.20270

[22] A. Meinke, B. Schoen, J. Scheurer, M. Balesni, R. Shah, and M. Hobbhahn, "Frontier models are capable of in-context scheming," arXiv preprint arXiv:2412.04984, 2024. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2412.04984

[23] A. Lynch, B. Wright, C. Larson, S. J. Ritchie, S. Mindermann, E. Hubinger, E. Perez, and K. Troy, "Agentic misalignment: How LLMs could be insider threats," arXiv preprint arXiv:2510.05179, 2025. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2510.05179

[24] N. Smyth, Y.-J. Mantilla-Ramos, P. J. T. Notsawo, S. Helbling, A. Tosato, M. A. Merzouk, N. Dziri, G. Gidel, and T. Tosato, "Quantifying overclaiming propensity in frontier LLM agents," arXiv preprint arXiv:2609.20812, 2026. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2609.20812

[25] A. Hägele, A. P. Gema, H. Sleight, E. Perez, and J. Sohl-Dickstein, "The hot mess of AI: How does misalignment scale with model intelligence and task complexity?" in *International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR)*, 2026. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2601.23045

[26] J. Cohen, "A coefficient of agreement for nominal scales," *Educational and Psychological Measurement*, vol. 20, no. 1, pp. 37–46, 1960.

[27] J. R. Landis and G. G. Koch, "The measurement of observer agreement for categorical data," *Biometrics*, vol. 33, no. 1, pp. 159–174, 1977.

[28] A. R. Feinstein and D. V. Cicchetti, "High agreement but low kappa: I. The problems of two paradoxes," *Journal of Clinical Epidemiology*, vol. 43, no. 6, pp. 543–549, 1990.

[29] UK AI Security Institute, "Inspect AI: Framework for large language model evaluations," Software, 2024, Accessed: Nov. 3, 2026. [Online]. Available: https://inspect.aisi.org.uk/

[30] A. Brooker and T. Hughes, "Pre-Flight: A benchmark for evaluating large language models on aviation operational knowledge," arXiv preprint arXiv:2607.01829, 2026, available in inspect_evals (UKGovernmentBEIS/inspect_evals, src/inspect_evals/pre_flight). [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2607.01829

[31] Y. Wu, H. Liu, Z. Li, and B. Wang, "PilotBench: A benchmark for general aviation agents with safety constraints," in *2026 International Joint Conference on Neural Networks (IJCNN)*, 2026. [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2604.08987

[32] Y. Yuan, Z. Wu, Y. Li, L. Ma, and K. Li, "AeroCopilotBench: Safety-gated evaluation of LLM agents on aircraft emergency procedures in an executable cockpit," arXiv preprint arXiv:2608.16349, 2026, title of v2 (27 Sep 2026); v1 (17 Aug 2026) was titled "AeroCopilotBench: A Two-Tier Benchmark for Evaluating LLM Agents as Aviation Copilots in an Interactive Virtual Cockpit Environment". [Online]. Available: https://arxiv.org/abs/2608.16349

A Data Audit Details

Duplicates and judge consistency. The 1 642 rows contain 1 537 distinct texts. Among labelled rows, 65 groups of byte-identical texts cover 166 rows, and in 59 the copies carry

Table 6: Data-quality exclusions applied before sampling.
Source: `docs/data_audit.md`

Reason	Rows	Note
Kept	1 505	
Corrupt source group	96	ChatDev–CodeLlama: 100 rows hold 30 distinct texts
Duplicate text	35	identical trajectory seen earlier; first copy kept
No MAST labels	4	all 14 labels null
Misfiled text	2	"HyperAgent" rows that contain ChatDev logs
Total	1 642	

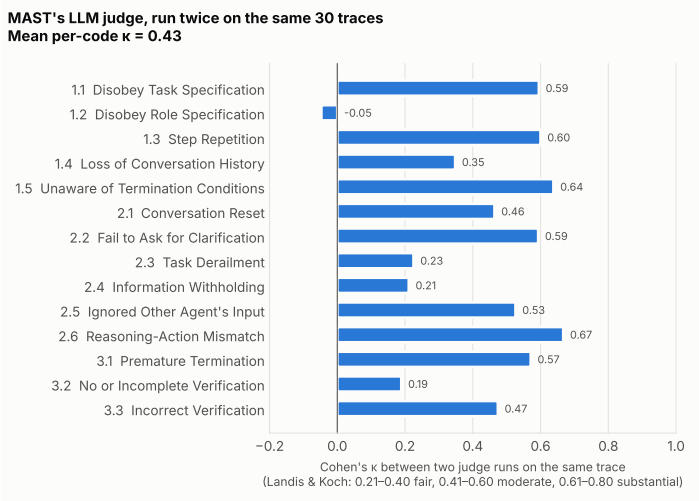


Figure 3: Test–retest agreement of MAST's LLM judge on 30 byte-identical Magentic-One traces labelled in two runs. Cohen's κ per failure mode; mean 0.43.

different labels. Thirty Magentic-One traces appear under two group names and were labelled in separate judge runs: per-mode κ averages 0.43 (range -0.05 to 0.67; raw agreement 0.80; only 4 of 30 pairs identical; Figure 3). MAST reports $\kappa = 0.77$ between its judge and experts [8]; the figures cover different traces and are not directly comparable, but repeat runs disagreeing this much suggest substantial run-to-run noise in individual labels. In the ChatDev–CodeLlama group, copies of the same text agree at -0.04 over 111 pairs, suggesting texts and labels were mismatched upstream; the group is excluded.

Metadata and logging. The OpenManus traces are tagged as programming tasks but are GAIA questions, and the AG2 "GSM" traces are GSM-Plus; both are corrected. In 29 of 30 OpenManus logs the task is printed truncated (the agents' plans indicate that they received the full text), and in one it was typed in and never logged; rendered traces carry a note. Five runs have an empty task. MAST's human-labelled file holds 19 traces (not 21), and within every round different traces carry identical label vectors, contradicting the original annotation sheets, so it is not used. Only 60 traces carry a benchmark verdict in the log (AppWorld and AG2 GSM-Plus).

Eligible pool. The pool is 893 MAST-failed and 373 MAST-clean traces: AG2 286 failed, MetaGPT 408, Magentic-One 127, AppWorld 27, OpenManus 27 and HyperAgent 18 (Figure 4). Four frameworks ran a single model, and "Claude" carries no version number.

MAST's descriptions of the systems. The documentation check found that MAST describes MetaGPT as having an explicit verifier, whereas the logs show MetaGPT's three-

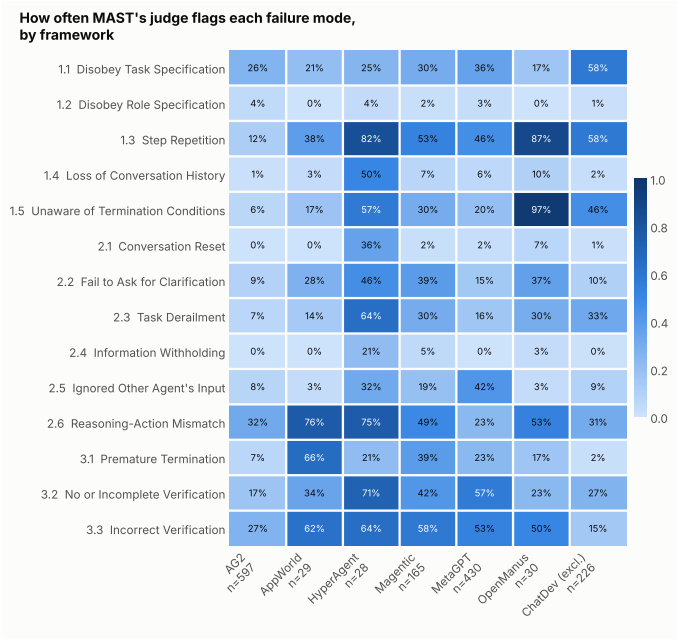


Figure 4: Share of kept traces in which MAST's judge flags each failure mode, by framework. ChatDev is shown for completeness but excluded from the study.

role example (425 of 430 traces follow its exact sequence), in which a reviewer comments only on the tests and no agent revises the code. MAST's HyperAgent traces come from a public SWE-bench submission dated September 2024, and MAST's paper labels them Claude-3.7-Sonnet, a model released in February 2025; the submission's metadata names GPT-4o. The multi-agent AppWorld set-up is MAST's own construction with unpublished prompts, and the AG2 MMLU team adapts MAST's published three-agent topology with unpublished MMLU prompts. No framework's version is published; Magentic-One's (autogen 0.4.9) appears only in each log's installation output.

B Method Details

Sampling and weights. The bulk sample allocates traces across frameworks and then across models within each framework by balanced allocation (smallest groups first), excluding the frozen calibration set. Each trace is weighted by the number of traces it represents in the eligible pool outside the calibration set (867 traces); shares use Wilson 95% intervals on the Kish effective sample size $n_{\text{eff}} = (\sum w)^2 / \sum w^2$.

Agreement. Bootstrap intervals use 2 000 resamples of traces, are computed for the headline measures, and are omitted where either coder gave fewer than three positive or three negative answers. The weighted deepest-layer κ uses the full ordered label set, so that distances are not distorted by absent levels.

Quote check. Each quote is matched against its cited step after normalising whitespace, quotation marks, capitals and markdown; an ellipsis splits a quote into pieces that must appear in order. Quotes are classed as found in the cited step, found in another step, not found, or citing a hidden or absent step.

Model-level comparisons. L4.4 is not coded from traces. Instead, patterns were compared across models with framework and benchmark held fixed (MetaGPT with Claude, GPT-4o, Qwen and CodeLlama, most of them apparently on ProgramDev-v2, although MAST's

Table 7: Evidence needed to code each AFACS layer, and the corresponding information category in Ezell et al. [6].

Layer	Evidence needed	Ezell et al. category
L1 unsafe acts, L2 preconditions	The trace: messages, actions, tool outputs	Activity logs; tool information
L3 supervision	The trace, the task specification and the system prompt	Activity logs (system and user prompts)
L4.1–L4.3 design, process	The trace and what is known of the system's design	System documentation; tool information
L4.5 operation set-up	The trace and what is known of how the run was launched and configured	Activity logs (user prompts); system configuration
L4.4 model development	Developer records: training and reward specifications, change logs, version or checkpoint comparisons	System documentation and change logs; system artefacts; model access

Table 8: Number of Ezell et al.'s eighteen information items each framework's logs provide. Applicable excludes items that do not arise in these benchmark runs (e.g. tool information for agents that use no tools).

Source: `docs/information_audit.md`

Framework	Traces	Applicable	Present	Partial	Absent
AppWorld	29	18	8	5	5
Magentic-One	165	17	6	6	5
OpenManus	30	17	6	4	7
HyperAgent	28	17	5	5	7
AG2	597	15	3	4	8
ChatDev	226	14	6	5	3
MetaGPT	430	10	2	3	5

metadata labels two of its groups ProgramDev; AG2 on GSM-Plus, Claude against GPT-4o). In the primary run no MetaGPT group carried a violation code (Opus coded two). AG2's Olympiad traces, all from GPT-4o, carried one in 31% of failures (50% and 38% in the other runs), against none in its GSM-Plus and MMLU traces in the primary run (a few in the others); there benchmark and model are confounded. The groups are small and the comparisons exploratory.

C Further Tables

D Further Worked Examples

A violation graded on the act (AG2). In `AG2_Olympiad_GPT4o__150` the assistant's instructions (S1) let it solve the problem by code, by reasoning alone, or step by step while waiting for query results, and require it to box the answer only after all queries have run. It reasons informally, then writes code headed "Perform calculation/verification" in which the answer is assigned as a constant and printed, and it boxes that number before the code has run (S2). The proxy returns the constant (S3), and the assistant presents it as the outcome of its analysis (S4). All three runs code `L1.V2` with the evidence graded *inferred*: nothing in the assistant's words acknowledges that the "verification" is empty, but the act is hard to read as accidental. All three runs also noted that a reviewer could code it as a decision error

Table 9: Where the framework expects MAST's modes to fall in AFACS, stated before the pilot.

MAST mode	Expected AFACS location
1.1 Disobey task specification	Spread: L3.4, L1.E2 or L1.E3, L1.V, or L4.5 (a run set up with no task)
1.2 Disobey role specification	L4.1 role design, or L1.E2 / L1.V
1.3 Step repetition	L1 act, with L3.3 where a supervisor could have broken the loop, and L4.1 (no termination logic)
1.4 Loss of conversation history	L2.2 agent state, with L4.2 context limits
1.5 Unaware of termination conditions	L4.1 termination logic, or L1.E2
2.1–2.5 Inter-agent misalignment	Mostly L2.3 coordination; 2.2 also L3.4
2.6 Reasoning–action mismatch	L1.E1 (sound intention, faulty execution), or L1.V
3.1 Premature termination	L1.E2, or L1.V (false claim of completion), with L3.1
3.2 No or incomplete verification	By whose job it was: L1 (incl. L1.V1 routine skipping), L3.1, or L4.1/L4.3
3.3 Incorrect verification	L3.1, L1.E2 or L1.E3

only, which is the judgement the grade leaves visible. Whether the answer is wrong cannot be told from the log.

A run with no task (MetaGPT). This trace was not in the AI sample (it was shown to the author during planning), so the coding here is the author's illustration under the codebook. In `MetaGPT_ProgramDev2_GPT4o__099` the task text is empty (S2). The coder writes a placeholder (S3), the tester writes template tests for a function that does not exist (S4), and the reviewer asks for more specific test inputs without mentioning that there is no task (S5). MAST labels the trace FM-1.1 Disobey Task Specification and FM-2.2 Fail to Ask for Clarification, but there was no specification to disobey: condition (1) of the violation rule cannot hold. The deepest factor is the run's set-up, L4.5 Operation set-up.